

CITY UNIVERSITY OF HONG KONG, DEPARTMENT OF PUBLIC AND INTERNATIONAL AFFAIRS SEM A, A.Y. 2026/27

COMPARATIVE POLITICS AND SOCIETIES

PIA2050 | WEEK 5: A SURVEY OF REGIME TYPES

LAST WEEK/THIS WEEK

Last week's class was dedicated to the study of processes of state-formation and nation-building—the objective was to understand why we ended up with a world dominated by so-called "nation-states" (i.e., states that govern one nation).

This week, we begin to look at some of the ways nation-states differ from one another, based on:

* National content (do the boundaries of state and nation coincide?)
* State capacity (the "degree of government," or the state's varying effectiveness in governing/serving a population);
* The form of government or regime, with special emphasis on the distinction between democracy and non-democracy, as well as different subtypes of non-democracy.

1. NATIONAL CONTENT

One of the ways in which the polities resulting from processes of state formation and nation building vary from each other is the degree to which such polities actually meet the definition of a "nation-state."

Whereas the "nation-state" has become the dominant form of political organization around the world, it is not the only one. Indeed, there remain countries around the world where the territory governed by the state does not coincide with the territory inhabited by a single nation:

* We may refer to states inhabited by more than one nation as "multi-national states";
* We may refer to states inhabited by less than a whole nation as "sub-national states."

Can you think of any examples?

1. NATIONAL CONTENT

Coming up with examples is problematic b/c exactly what constitutes "a nation" in practice is contested (b/c a nation only really exists in the minds of its members).

Yet, political scientists Juan Linz and Alfred Stepan have pointed out that the lack of correspondence between state and nation (the problem of "stateness") is likely to be very consequential for a country's stability and its suitability for democracy (see Linz and Stepan 1996). Why?

Stability may be compromised if there is no agreement regarding who should and should not be considered a "citizen;" multi-national states could experience attempts to secede from the polity or "cleanse" it of undesired minorities.

And, in those situations, it is difficult to envision a lasting agreement on the rules of the game (or commitment to using democratic means).

2. STATE CAPACITY

Likewise, not all states have the same capacity to control/serve the population (or, at least, not uniformly throughout the national territory).

The textbook for this course (Ch. 3) distinguishes between these types of state:

(1) Effective State:
Default category, def. as a state that "controls the national territory and the borders and has sufficient domestic penetration to ensure that national laws and policies are in effect throughout the country."

Requires "a stable judicial system," a bureaucracy based on rational-legal principles, as well as enough state capacity to raise tax revenues and provide basic services (like public education, public health).

The state is legitimate all over the country and among all social classes.

2. STATE CAPACITY

(2) Flawed State:

“Not as effective in terms of depth of penetration or legitimacy.” Also, “lower levels of bureaucratic quality,” “higher levels of corruption and of tax avoidance,” “problematic economic performance,” and “more political riots and rebellions.”

(3) Weak State:

“Even less effective than a flawed state in that actual areas of the country are outside of government control. […] A weak state is not able to impose national policies throughout the country; indeed, its effect may be limited to the capital and selected other areas, usually those adjacent to the capital. Elsewhere, it lacks a presence, or what presence it has is seen as illegitimate and ignored. Within a weak state, individual state actors may well arbitrarily act to enrich themselves personally rather than follow any legal obligations.[…] a weak state will be inadequate for economic and social development.”

2. STATE CAPACITY

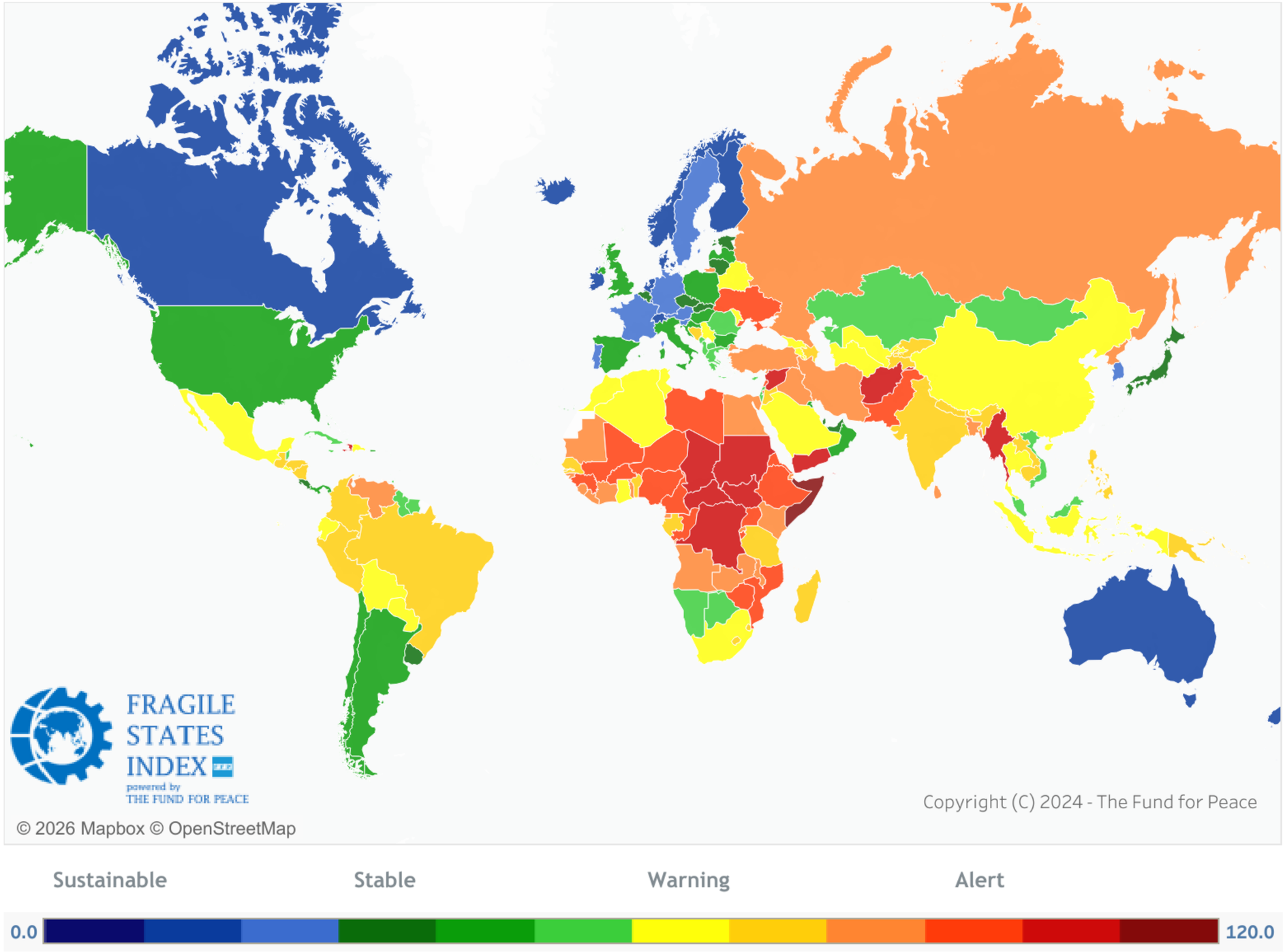
(4) Collapsed (or Failed) State:

"There is truly no state authority but rather anarchy, multi-actor civil war, or fragmentation into various autonomous regional areas, often controlled by warlords. [...] However, a state in the throes of a civil war that divides the country in two along a frontline is not deemed to have collapsed, as long as it has a national government that still effectively controls "its" territory and adjacent national borders but not the "rebel" territory.

As Table 3.1 shows, as of the end of 2021 only Yemen and Libya were classified collapsed state (Somalia also qualifies by some measures). Several other countries —Afghanistan, Angola, Burundi, Democratic Republic of the Congo (Kinshasa), Iraq, Lebanon, Liberia, and Sierra Leone also saw their states collapse in the last several decades, but their states have since been re-established.

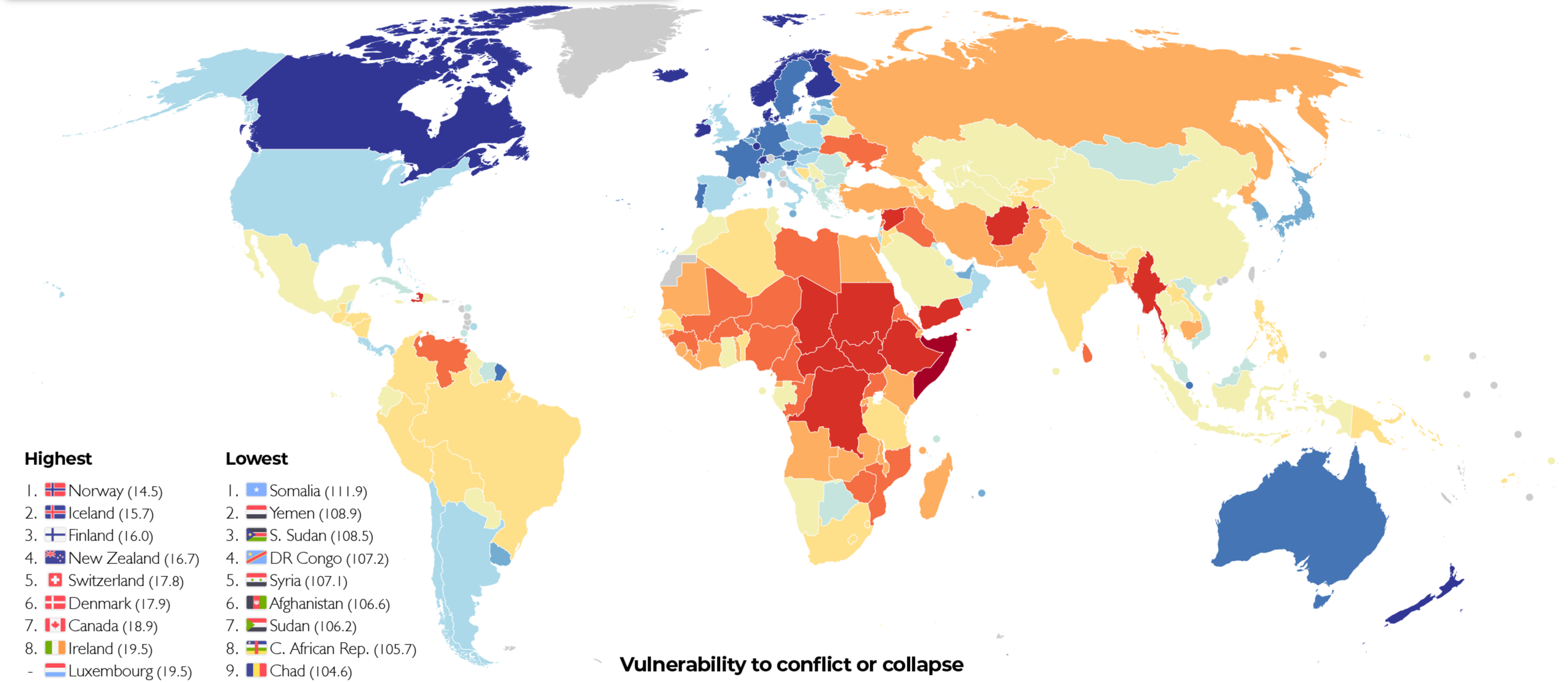
Table 3.1 **Levels of State Strength (as of the end of 2021)**

EFFECTIVE STATE						
Andorra	Chile	France	Kuwait	Netherlands	San Marino	United Arab Emirates
Australia	China	Germany	Latvia	New Zealand	Serbia	
Austria	Costa Rica	Hungary	Liechtenstein	North Macedonia	Seychelles	United Kingdom
Bahamas	Croatia	Iceland	Lithuania		Singapore	United States
Barbados	Cyprus	Ireland	Luxembourg	Norway	Slovakia	Uruguay
Belgium	Czech Republic	Israel	Malaysia	Oman	Slovenia	Vietnam
Botswana		Italy	Malta	Poland	Spain	
Brunei	Denmark	Japan	Mauritius	Portugal	Sweden	
Bulgaria	Estonia	Korea, South	Monaco	Qatar	Switzerland	
Canada	Finland		Montenegro	Romania	Taiwan	
FLAWED STATE						
Albania	Cambodia	Fiji	Kazakhstan	Namibia	Samoa	Togo
Algeria	Cape Verde	Gabon	Kenya	Nauru	São Tomé and Príncipe	Tunisia
Antigua and Barbuda	Comoros	Gambia	Kiribati	Nepal		Turkey
	Congo, R	Ghana	Korea, North	Nicaragua	Saudi Arabia	Turkmenistan
Argentina	Cuba	Greece	Kosovo	Pakistan	Senegal	Tuvalu
Armenia	Djibouti	Grenada	Kyrgyzstan	Palau	Sierra Leone	Uganda
Bahrain	Dominica	Guinea	Laos	Panama	Solomon Islands	Uzbekistan
Bangladesh	Dominican Republic	Guinea-Bissau	Lesotho	Paraguay		Vanuatu
Belarus			Liberia	Peru	South Africa	Zambia
Belize	East Timor	Guyana	Malawi	Philippines	Sri Lanka	Zimbabwe
Benin	Ecuador	Honduras	Maldives	Russia	Suriname	
Bhutan	Egypt	India	Marshall Islands	Rwanda	Tajikistan	
Bolivia	El Salvador	Indonesia		Saint Lucia	Tanzania	
Bosnia-Herzegovina	Equatorial Guinea	Iran	Mauritania	Saint Vincent and the Grenadines	Thailand	
		Ivory Coast	Mongolia		Tonga	
Brazil	Eritrea	Jamaica	Morocco	Saint Kitts and Nevis	Trinidad and Tobago	
Burundi	Eswatini	Jordan	Micronesia			
WEAK STATE						
Afghanistan	Central African Republic	Congo, DR	Iraq	Moldova	Papua New Guinea	Syria
Angola		Georgia	Lebanon	Mozambique		Ukraine
Azerbaijan		Guatemala	Madagascar	Myanmar	Somalia	Venezuela
Burkina Faso	Chad	Ethiopia	Mali	Niger	South Sudan	
Cameroon	Colombia	Haiti	Mexico	Nigeria	Sudan	
COLLAPSED STATE						
Libya	Yemen					


FRAGILE
STATES
INDEX
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Sustainable
Stable
Warning
Alert
0.0
120.0

Fragile States Index

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Highest

1. Norway (14.5)
2. Iceland (15.7)
3. Finland (16.0)
4. New Zealand (16.7)
5. Switzerland (17.8)
6. Denmark (17.9)
7. Canada (18.9)
8. Ireland (19.5)
- Luxembourg (19.5)
10. Sweden (20.6)

Lowest

1. Somalia (111.9)
2. Yemen (108.9)
3. S. Sudan (108.5)
4. DR Congo (107.2)
5. Syria (107.1)
6. Afghanistan (106.6)
7. Sudan (106.2)
8. C. African Rep. (105.7)
9. Chad (104.6)
10. Haiti (102.9)

Vulnerability to conflict or collapse

0 10 20 30 40 50 60 70 80 90 100 110 120

Sustainable **Stable** **Warning** **Alert**

Source: Fund for Peace, 2023

3. REGIMES

The textbook defines a political regime as:

> "The formal and informal structure of state and governmental roles and processes. The regime includes the method of selection of the government and of representative assemblies (election, coup, decision within the military, royal prerogative, etc.), formal and informal mechanisms of representation, and patterns of repression. The regime is typically distinguished from the particular incumbents who occupy state and governmental roles, the political coalition that supports these incumbents, and the public policies they adopt (except of course policies that define or transpose the regime itself)."

For our purposes, the key distinction is between democracy and non-democracy. Among the latter, we distinguish between hybrid regimes and forms of autocracy (incl. authoritarianism, totalitarianism, and sultanism).

3. REGIMES

"Democracy" is typically translated as "rule of the people;" more accurately, it means "rule of the *demos*."

Greek city-states (*polis*) like Athens pioneered "direct democracy" in the period between 500-322 BCE. Full citizenship was reserved for the members of "the *demos*," who were entitled to participate in the judicial/legislative affairs of the city and were eligible to serve in public office (executive/admin/judicial).





Citizens met in the *agora*, listened to speeches, and used *psephos* (stones of different colors or bronze ballots) to reach decisions.

A "good citizen" was considered one who participated in the city's affairs rationally and with no concern for self-interest. Those who didn't were called *idiotes*.

3. REGIMES

The emphasis on the sovereignty of the *demos* and the participation of its members in public deliberations helped provide the intellectual and legal foundations of modern mechanisms of accountability, even though Athens did not place great importance on elections (permanent offices were generally filled by lottery).

Something else the ancient Greeks lacked (compared with present-day democracies) was the belief in, and the practice of, individual equality. At its most "democratic," only 10% of the population of Athens was part of the demos, which excluded slaves as well as "metics" (2/3 of the population), women, and men who did not own property or had not yet completed military service.

Full citizenship was reserved for (male) heads of households—roughly 30,000 people in total out of a population of 300,000.

3. REGIMES

The political scientist Adam Przeworski offered two definitions of democracy that capture some important aspects of the concept.

The first emphasizes the importance of giving citizens a real choice between viable (and highly aggregated) governing alternatives:

"Democracy is a system in which parties lose elections."

The other underscores the importance of having rules that guarantee (institutionalize) true competition:

"The process of establishing a democracy is a process of institutionalizing uncertainty, of subjecting all interests to uncertainty."

And then there's Abraham Lincoln, who spoke of:

"Government of the people, by the people, and for the people."

DEMOCRACY

However, in modern democracies, to the extent that "the people" rule, they only do so indirectly, through representatives.

In order to define modern democracies without taking a position on whether such regimes allow for "the rule of the people," political scientist Robert Dahl (1982: 11) introduced the concept of *polyarchy* (or "modern political democracy") which requires the following:

(1) Control over governmental decisions about policy is constitutionally vested in elected officials.

(2) Elected officials are chosen and peacefully removed in relatively frequent, fair and free elections in which coercion is quite limited.

(3) Practically all adults have the right to vote in these elections.

DEMOCRACY

(4) Most adults also have the right to run for the public offices for which candidates run in these elections.

(5) Citizens have an effectively enforced right to freedom of expression, particularly political expression, including criticism of the officials, the conduct of the government, the prevailing political, economic, and social system, and the dominant ideology.

(6) They also have access to alternative sources of information that are not monopolized by the government or any other single group.

(7) Finally, they have an effectively enforced right to form and join autonomous associations, including political associations, such as political parties and interest groups, that attempt to influence the government by competing in elections and by other peaceful means.

DEMOCRACY

Schmitter and Karl (1991: 81) added two additional requirements:

> (8) Popularly elected officials must be able to exercise their constitutional powers without being subjected to overriding (albeit informal) opposition from unelected officials. Democracy is in jeopardy if military officers, entrenched civil servants, or state managers retain the capacity to act independently of elected civilians or even veto decisions made by the people's representatives. [...] The caveat thus guards against what we earlier called "electoralism"—the tendency to focus on the holding of elections while ignoring other political realities.
>
> (9) The polity must be self-governing; it must be able to act independently of constraints imposed by some other overarching political system.

DEMOCRACY

Francis Fukuyama's book The Origins of Political Order makes the case that modern liberal democracies combine the following elements:

1. A "Modern" State:

Per Max Weber, "An organization that exercises a monopoly over the legitimate use of violence in a finite territory."

2. The Rule of Law:

The idea that the law applies to everyone equally; that it serves to constrain state power, as opposed to enable it.

3. Procedures of Accountability:

Development of ways for citizens to remove governments that do not serve the interests of society.

The first developed in China; the second and third in the so-called "West."

DEMOCRACY

The development of the "rule of law" and "democratic accountability" went hand in hand with the spread of ("popular"/"authentic") nationalism and its conceptions of "sovereignty" and "citizenship." How so?

The concept of "popular sovereignty" (the idea that political power ultimately resides in or springs from the people) justifies the holding of general elections that give citizens the capacity to choose governments, reward/punish officials for past performance.

The modern concept of "equal citizenship" assures citizens against the possibility that governments might encroach on their rights by setting limitations on state/government power; at its most expansive, it assures equal right of all citizens to participate in decision-making processes affecting the entire community.

DEMOCRACY

For our purposes, the point is that a "real" "democracy" combines majority rule (as expressed through free, fair, and competitive elections) and a set of "liberal" rights, esp. for the benefits of minorities of various kinds. For short, we might say that:

Democracy = Majority rule + Minority rights

The textbook defines countries that meet both criteria as *liberal democracies*. Conversely, countries that only meet the first requirement as *electoral democracies.*

In theory, it is possible that a country could meet the second requirement but not the first. In the past, these regimes were called by some liberal autocracy. However, there was only ever one example offered for liberal autocracy (care to guess?).

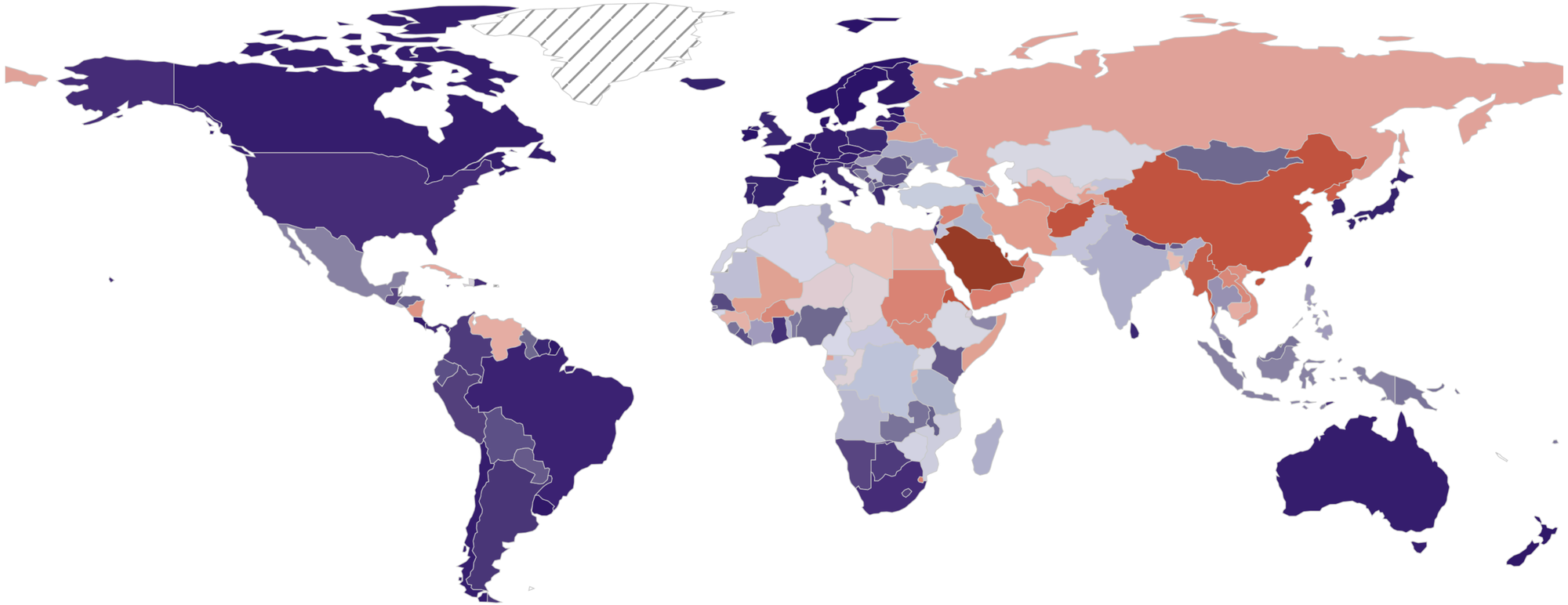
In practice, it is debatable whether *electoral democracies* should be considered democracies (it is questionable whether you can have truly free/fair/competitive elections without the guarantee of freedoms of speech, association, assembly).

Table 4.4 Annual/Biennial Index Surveys of Levels of Democracy

	Frequency	Geographic Coverage	Summary Categories	Underlying Scale
Economist Intelligence Unit (EIU) Democracy Index	Annual	165 countries and 2 territories	Four categories: full democracy, flawed democracy, hybrid regime, and authoritarian regime	0.00 to 10.00
Freedom House, Freedom in the World	Annual	195 countries and 15 territories	Three categories: free, partly free, and not free	0 to 100
Polity	Annual	163 countries	Three categories: democracy, anocracy, and autocracy	–10 to 10
V-Dem Index*	Annual	202 countries and territories	No overall categories	0.000 to 1.000
International Institute for Democracy and Electoral Assistance (International IDEA)	Biennial	165 countries	Three categories: democracy, hybrid regime, authoritarian regime (with democracy further divided)	0.00 to 1.00

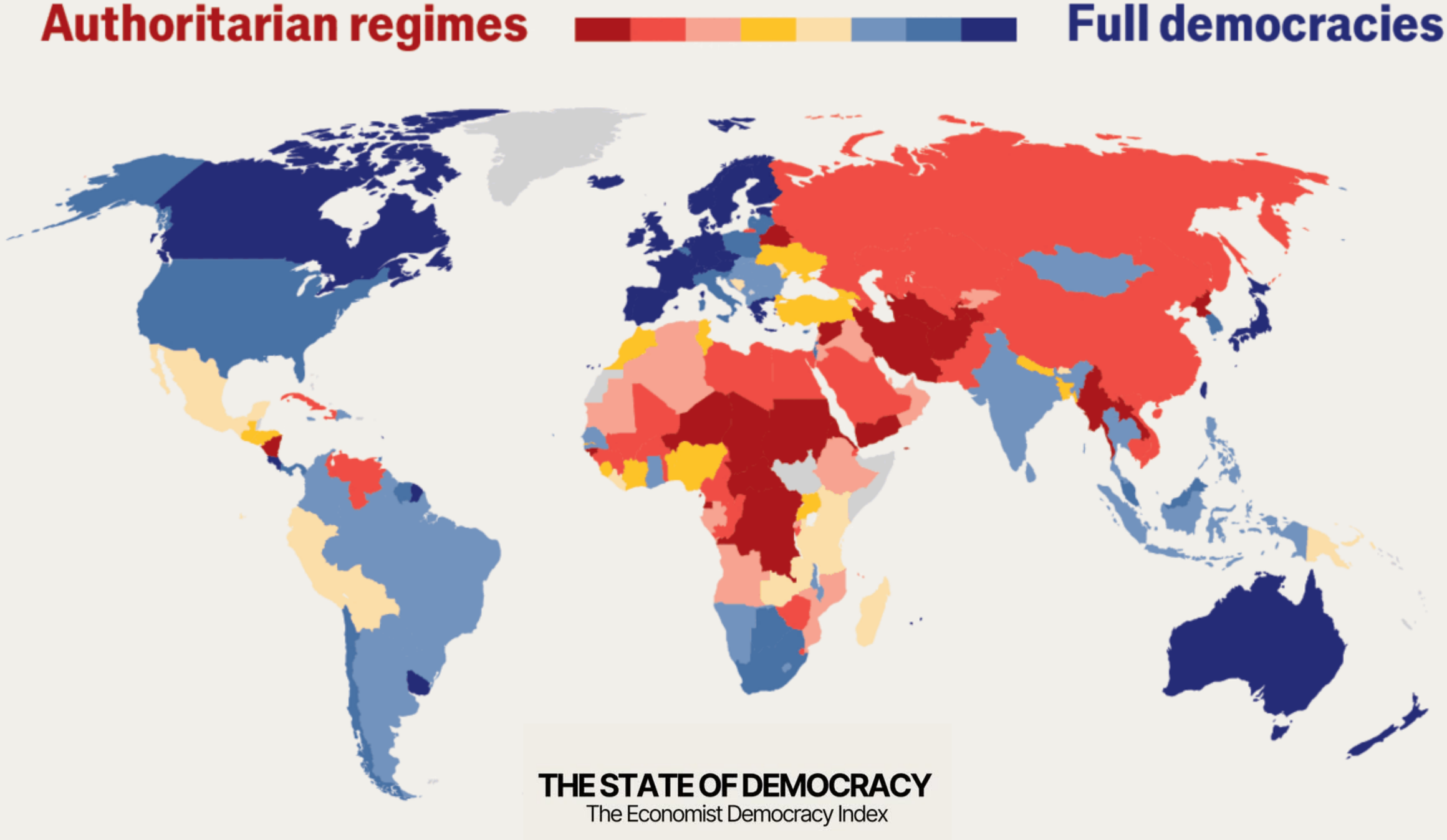
* The V-Dem Index is, in fact, five separate indices of electoral, liberal, participatory, deliberative, and egalitarian democracy; however, the electoral democracy index is part of all the other indices (they each add to it in different ways).

Additive polyarchy index (2025)



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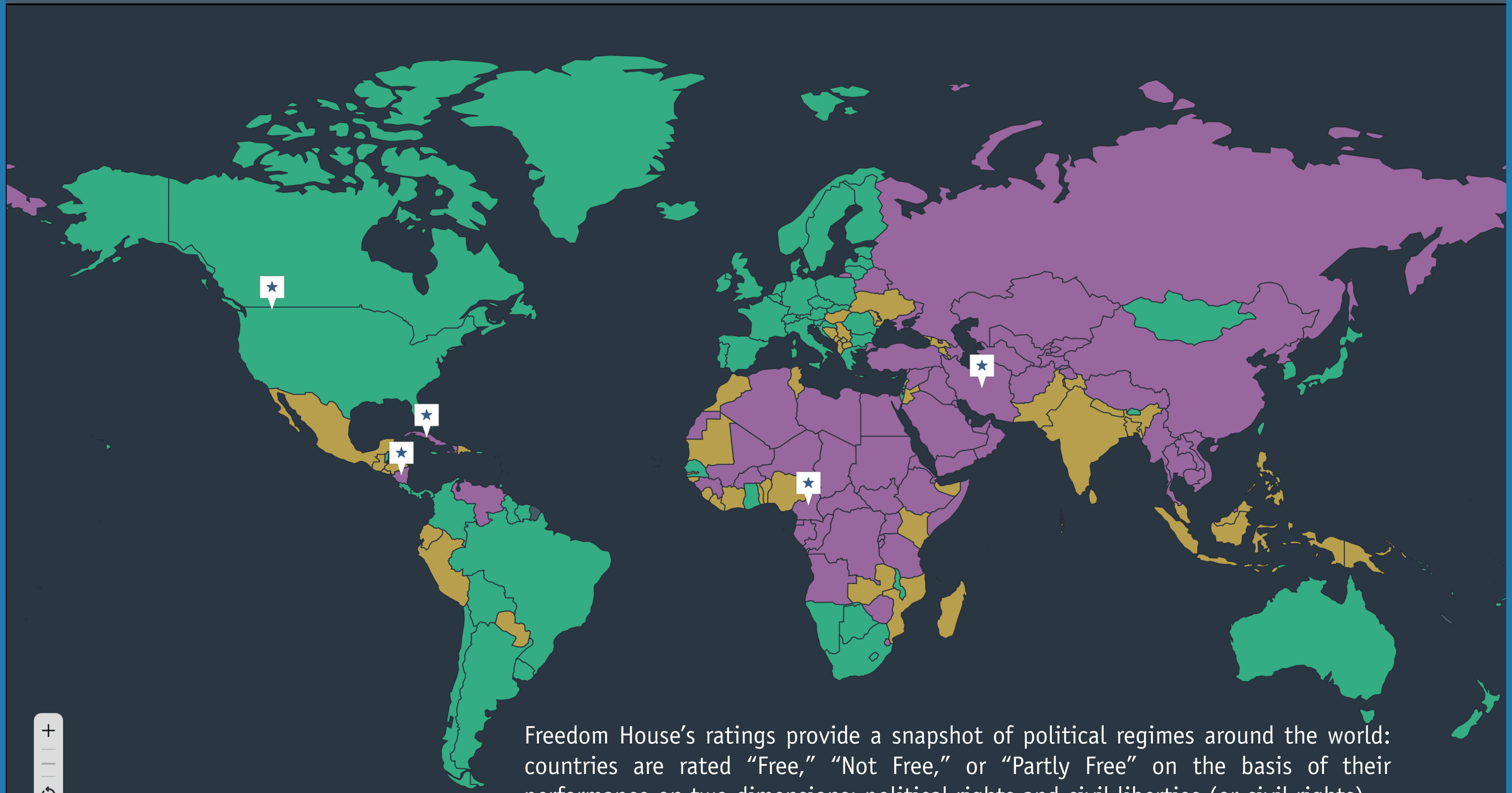
Year: 2025


Authoritarian regimes
Full democracies
THE STATE OF DEMOCRACY
The Economist Democracy Index

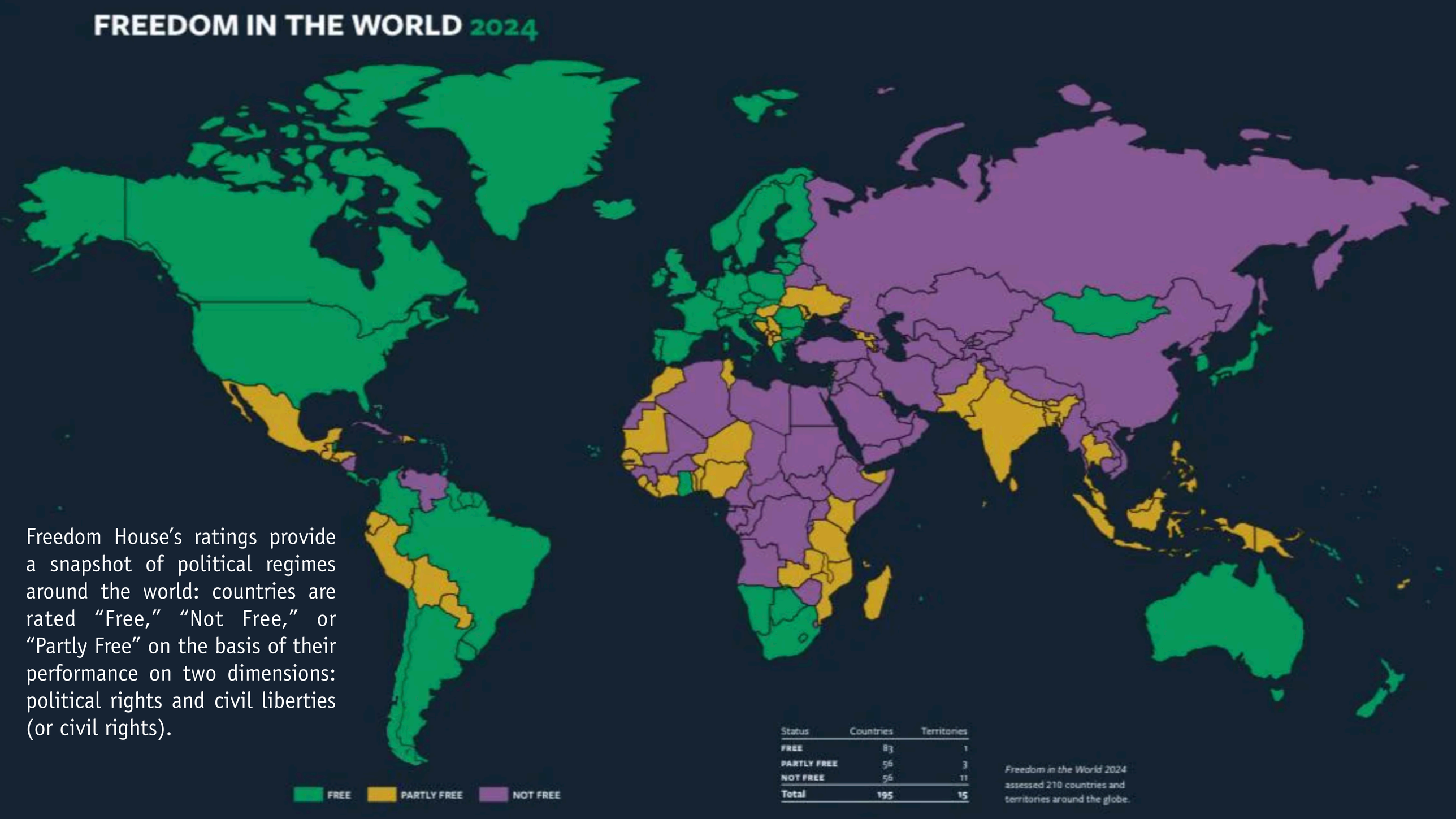
Freedom in the World: Freedom in the World is the most widely read report of its kind, tracking political rights and civil liberties worldwide.

Filter by Freedom Score: NOT FREE | PARTLY FREE | FREE

FREEDOM IN THE WORLD 2026



Freedom House's ratings provide a snapshot of political regimes around the world: countries are rated "Free," "Not Free," or "Partly Free" on the basis of their performance on two dimensions: political rights and civil liberties (or civil rights).



Freedom House's ratings provide a snapshot of political regimes around the world: countries are rated "Free," "Not Free," or "Partly Free" on the basis of their performance on two dimensions: political rights and civil liberties (or civil rights).

Status	Countries	Territories
FREE	83	1
PARTLY FREE	56	3
NOT FREE	56	11
Total	**195**	**15**

Freedom in the World 2024 assessed 210 countries and territories around the globe.

Table 4.3 **Democracies and Autocracies (as of the end of 2021)**

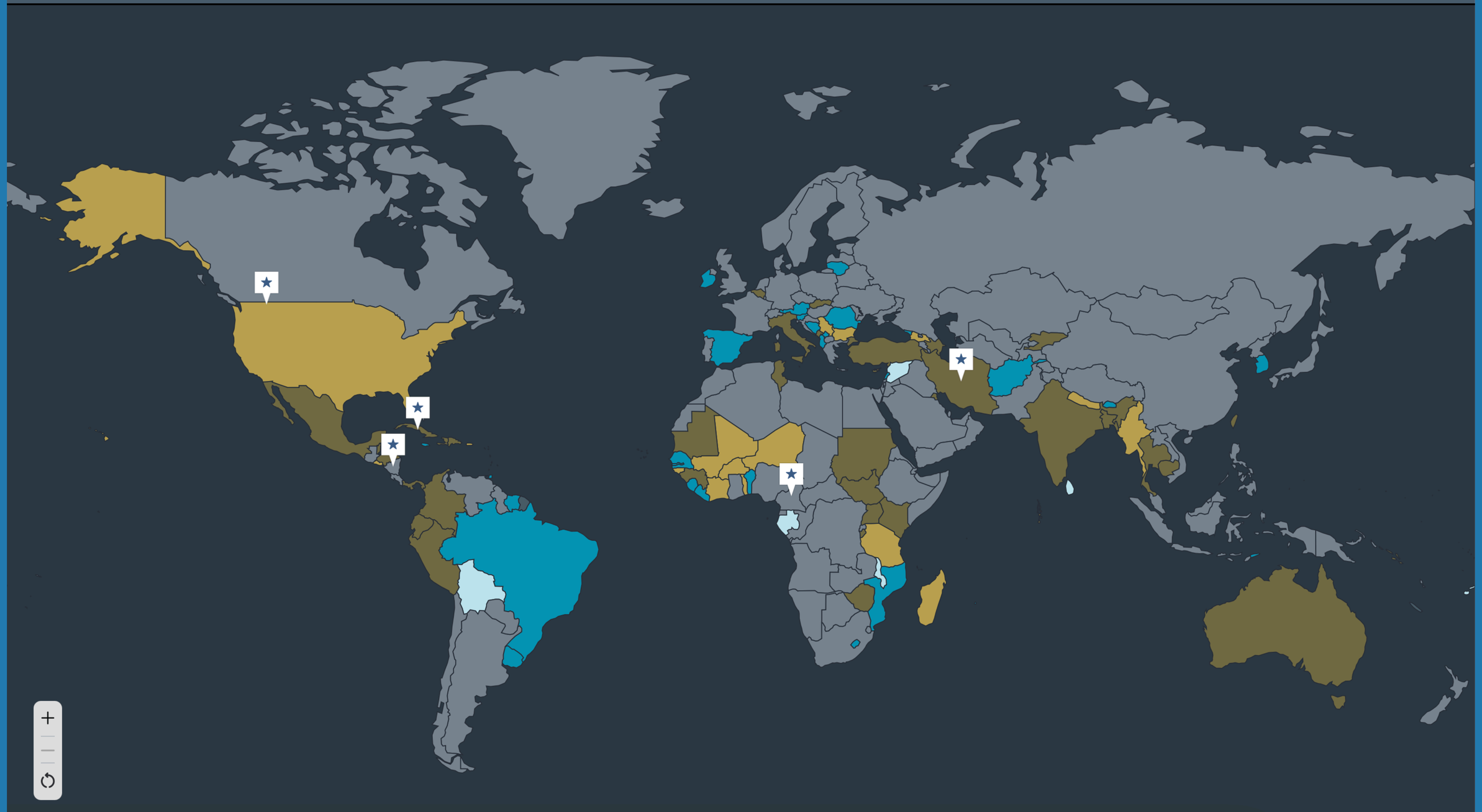
Total Regimes = 195

LIBERAL DEMOCRACIES (N = 39)				
Andorra	Chile	Iceland	Netherlands	Spain
Australia	Costa Rica	Ireland	New Zealand	Sweden
Austria	Czech Republic	Italy	Norway	Switzerland
Bahamas	Denmark	Korea, South	Portugal	Taiwan
Barbados	Estonia	Latvia	Saint Kitts and Nevis	United Kingdom
Belgium	Finland	Lithuania	Saint Lucia	United States
Canada	France	Luxembourg	San Marino	Uruguay
Cape Verde	Germany	Micronesia	Slovenia	

ELECTORAL DEMOCRACIES (N = 67)				
Antigua and Barbuda	Dominica	Kosovo	Namibia	Seychelles
Argentina	East Timor	Lebanon	Nauru	Slovakia
Armenia	Ecuador	Lesotho	Nepal	Solomon Islands
Belize	Gambia	Liberia	Nigeria	South Africa
Bhutan	Ghana	Liechtenstein	North Macedonia	Sri Lanka
Bolivia	Greece	Malawi	Palau	Suriname
Botswana	Grenada	Maldives	Panama	Trinidad and Tobago
Brazil	Guyana	Malta	Paraguay	Tuvalu
Bulgaria	India	Marshall Islands	Peru	Ukraine
Burkina Faso	Indonesia	Mauritius	Poland	Vanuatu
Colombia	Israel	Mexico	Romania	Zambia
Croatia	Jamaica	Moldova	Samoa	
Cyprus	Japan	Mongolia	Saint Vincent and the Grenadines	
Dominican Republic	Kiribati	Montenegro	São Tomé and Príncipe	

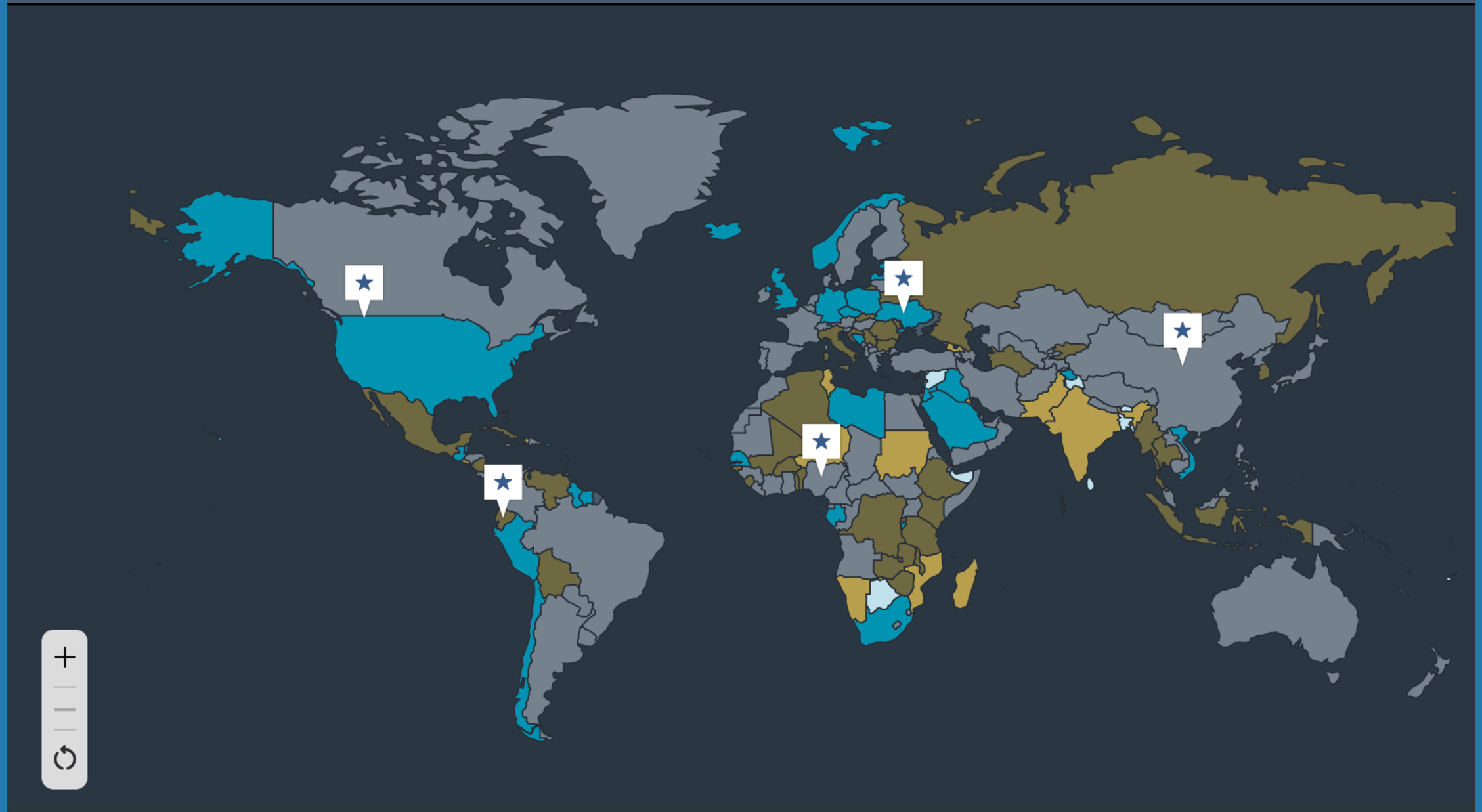
Change in Freedom Score From 2025 to 2026

Filter by Freedom Score: DECLINED 3+ | DECLINED 1-2 | NO CHANGE | IMPROVED 1-2 | IMPROVED 3+



Change in Freedom Score From 2023 to 2024

Filter by Freedom Score: DECLINED 3+ | DECLINED 1-2 | NO CHANGE | IMPROVED 1-2 | IMPROVED 3+



NON-DEMOCRACY

Countries that fail to qualify as full democracies may be broken down into countries that are "Partly Free" (or Hybrid Regimes) and those that are "Not Free" (or Autocracies).

The textbook only distinguishes between "Closed Autocracy" and "Semi-Liberal Autocracy."

"Autocracy" means "self-rule," but it applies to the rule of any individual or group that is not accountable to the population.

With regard to Hybrid Regimes (most of them qualify as "Semi-Liberal Autocracy"), the basic distinction is whether these regimes are:

* Transitional: Moving from one regime type to another; or,
* Entrenched: Relatively stable.

Many different typologies/classifications have been proposed for hybrid regimes.

DEMOCRACY

AROUND THE WORLD

Countries are rated on a scale from 0 to 10, with the global average declining slightly to **5.2** in 2024.

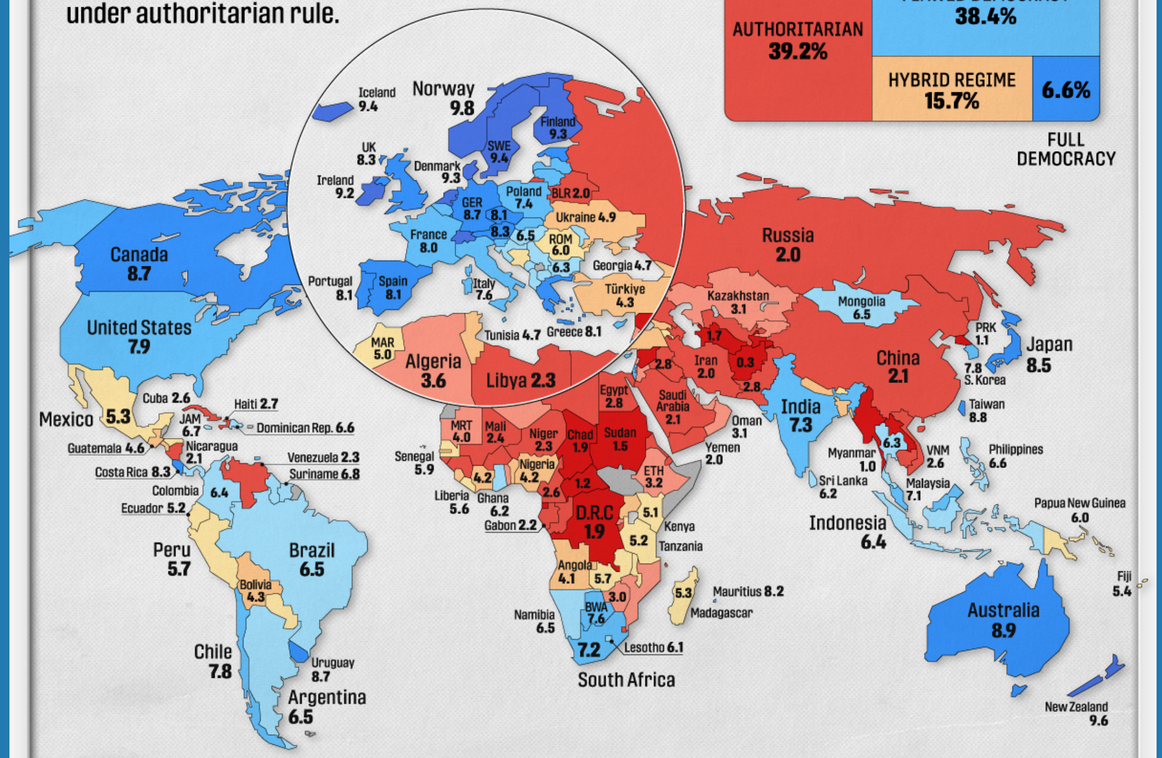
GLOBAL DEMOCRACY INDEX SCORE 2024

1 2 3	4 5	6 7	8 9
AUTHORITARIAN	HYBRID REGIME	FLAWED DEMOCRACY	FULL DEMOCRACY

60 countries worldwide operate under authoritarian rule.

SHARE OF WORLD POPULATION

AUTHORITARIAN	FLAWED DEMOCRACY	HYBRID REGIME	FULL DEMOCRACY
39.2%	38.4%	15.7%	6.6%



Source: Economist Intelligence Unit Democracy Index 2024

Scores have been rounded. France is a flawed regime, Romania and Papua New Guinea are hybrid regimes, and Mauritania is authoritarian.

COLLABORATORS RESEARCH + WRITING Dorothy Neufeld, Niccolo Conte | ART DIRECTION + DESIGN Sabrina Lam

TABLE 4.2 Democracies and Autocracies as Regime Types

	Liberal Democracy	Electoral Democracy	Semi-liberal Autocracy	Closed Autocracy
Political Parties and Elections and Overall Political Opposition	Free and fair competition involving two or more parties; citizens can change their government through elections; an open and usually strong political opposition.	Two or more parties exist; open political opposition; citizens can change their government through elections, but elections are sometimes not completely free and fair.	Usually more than one party; limited political pluralism and consequent political opposition; however, national elections are not free and fair enough to actually change the government (or do not determine the government).	Either one official party or all parties are forbidden, although political independents can sometimes be elected if they are not openly anti-regime.
Socio-economic Pluralism	Many autonomous actors in economy and broader society (of course, not all have equal political influence).	Often quite extensive social and economic pluralism.	Some social and economic pluralism, perhaps predating the autocratic regime.	No significant social pluralism; usually some economic and religious pluralism.
Civil Liberties	Full civil liberties.	Civil liberties are usually incomplete if not limited.	Civil liberties are limited or at best incomplete.	No or next to no civil liberties.
Ideology	Emphasis on civilian authority, the rule of law, individualism, and minority rights.	Usually no formal guiding ideology.	No formal guiding ideology; at best distinctive tendencies.	No formal guiding ideology unless totalitarian; usually nationalistic.
Mobilization	Participation largely generated autonomously by civil society and by competing parties.	Participation largely generated autonomously by civil society and by competing parties.	Participation largely generated autonomously by civil society, but with some restrictions.	Emphasis on demobilization, except at some historical points.
Legitimacy of Authority	Legitimacy comes from legal-rational authority, even if some leaders may be aided by their personal charisma.	Legitimacy usually comes from legal-rational authority, although the processes are imperfect.	Wide range of legitimizing factors, including the illusion of legal-rational authority.	Legitimacy comes from tradition and claims of acting in the national interest.
Constraints on Authority	Clearly constrained by the constitution, the courts and the rule of law, a professional bureaucracy, and socio-political pluralism.	Clearly constrained by the constitution; only somewhat constrained by the courts and the rule of law, the bureaucracy, and socio-political pluralism.	Constrained only somewhat (if at all) by the constitution, courts, the rule of law, and the bureaucracy; constrained more by socio-political pluralism, especially the independent media.	A leader or perhaps a small group enjoys legally undefined limits but, in fact, is somewhat constrained by the bureaucracy, the military, and economic actors.
Political Accountability to Population	Definite political accountability to the voters at elections and to society in an ongoing sense.	General political accountability to the voters at elections and to society in an ongoing sense.	No true political accountability.	No political accountability.
Leadership Duration	Leaders must subject themselves to periodic free and fair elections; transitions are legitimate and smooth.	Certain political leaders must subject themselves to periodic elections; tutelary actors shielded from this.	Individual leaders may well be of limited duration; often, elections "confirm" new leader, however produced.	Leadership usually for life unless overthrown.
Transition to (Liberal) Democracy		Usually a gradual removal of selected remaining barriers.	A variety of scenarios; however, a stable negotiated transition can occur in competitive autocratic regimes with developed civil societies.	Needs to go first through a semi-liberal autocratic phase with some socio-political pluralism, unless defeated in war and occupied by a foreign power willing to democratize.

Source: Based, in part, on concepts in Juan J. Linz and Alfred Stepan, *Problems of Democratic Transition and Consolidation: Southern Europe, South America, and Post-Communist Europe* (Baltimore, MD: The Johns Hopkins University Press, 1996), Table 3.1 and 4.2, with modifications.

NON-DEMOCRACY

Some of the main varieties of "entrenched" hybrid regimes:

* Pseudo-Democracy: Recourse to elections, but no real competition because the deck is stacked against the opposition. Also, heavy-handed restrictions on people's rights.
* Competitive Authoritarianism: Like pseudo-democracies, but there are some domains (at regional/national level) that are open to real competition (i.e., where the government can lose).
* Tutelary Democracy: Przeworski (1988: 61): "a regime which has competitive, formally democratic institutions, but in which the power apparatus [...] retains the capacity to intervene to correct undesirable states of affairs."
* Delegative Democracy: Free/fair elections where anyone can win, but where elected governments face with little accountability, are often able to trample on the rights of minorities without consequences.

NON-DEMOCRACY

Note that different countries are "Not Free" in different ways or for different reasons. Some are ruled by personalized dictatorships, some by kings (monarchies), some by military generals, some by one-party regimes, and some by theocratic governments.

Note that many/most of these countries have laws or constitutions that purport to guarantee civil and political rights on paper.

Again, many classifications/typologies have been proposed over the years. One of the most widely used typologies of dictatorial regimes was formulated by Linz and Stepan (1996), who distinguished between:

* Authoritarian regimes;
* Totalitarian regimes;
* Post-totalitarian regimes;
* Sultanistic regimes.

SEMI-OPEN AUTOCRACIES (N = 48)				
Albania	Fiji	Ivory Coast	Mozambique	Singapore
Algeria	Gabon	Jordan	Niger	Tanzania
Angola	Georgia	Kenya	Pakistan	Thailand
Bangladesh	Guatemala	Kuwait	Papua New Guinea	Togo
Benin	Guinea-Bissau	Kyrgyzstan	Philippines	Tonga
Bosnia-Herzegovina	Haiti	Madagascar	Russia	Tunisia
Central African Republic	Honduras	Malaysia	Senegal	Turkey
Comoros	Hungary	Mauritania	Serbia	Uganda
Congo, DR	Iran	Monaco	Sierra Leone	Zimbabwe
El Salvador	Iraq	Morocco		
CLOSED AUTOCRACIES (N = 41)				
Afghanistan	China	Ethiopia	Nicaragua	Syria
Azerbaijan	Congo, R	Guinea	Oman	Tajikistan
Bahrain	Cuba	Kazakhstan	Qatar	Turkmenistan
Belarus	Djibouti	Korea, North	Rwanda	United Arab Emirates
Brunei	Egypt	Laos	Saudi Arabia	Uzbekistan
Burundi	Equatorial Guinea	Libya	Somalia	Venezuela
Cambodia	Eritrea	Mali	South Sudan	Vietnam
Cameroon	Eswatini	Myanmar	Sudan	Yemen
Chad				

TOTALITARIANISM

Under Totalitarianism, state seeks to regulate every aspect of public/ private life (incl. through extensive surveillance/terror):

* Giovanni Gentile wrote that in these regimes, the state provides "total representation of the nation and total guidance of national goals."
* Benito Mussolini described his regime as "Everything within the state, nothing outside the state, nothing against the state."

Totalitarian regimes exercise a complete monopoly on political power. Also, these regimes encourage active mass participation in the activities of the state, while seeking to inculcate in the people an "all-encompassing" or "total" ideology legitimizing/guiding the regime.

Historically, totalitarian regimes have been either communist (USSR under Stalin, China under Mao, North Korea under Kim Il Sung) or nazi-fascist (Italy under Mussolini; Germany under Hitler).

POST-TOTALITARIANISM

Note that these historical examples are very few and have not existed for a few decades. For most of their histories, the USSR's and the PRC's communist regimes, as well as Italy's fascist regime, were instances of "incomplete totalitarianism."

More recently, the PRC, while still nominally governed by a communist regime, transitioned to "post-totalitarianism" after the party de-emphasized its reliance on ideology, abandoned the active mobilization of the population, and relaxed its control of the economy.

Why have totalitarian regimes declined? Two reasons above all:

(i) It is hard to exercise "total" control of a large territory and a population of millions. The onset of modernity also poses a problem, insofar as it makes it hard to keep out inconvenient information;

(ii) "Total ideologies" were comprehensively defeated in WW2 and the "Cold War".

AUTHORITARIANISM

Under "Authoritarianism," conversely, the state does not have quite the same role:

* Power is somewhat more constrained as well as more dispersed, possibly to the point that some limited pluralism in the political or the socio-economic sphere is allowed;
* Guiding ideologies are less important and are interpreted more flexibly; the regime bases its legitimacy on tradition/culture, national security/interest, or economic performance;
* Less/no emphasis is placed on active participation; passive obedience is what the state demands from the population.

The textbook distinguishes between "traditional authoritarianism," "military authoritarianism" (ak.a., "bureaucratic-military authoritarianism"), "religious authoritarianism," and "electoral authoritarianism."

SULTANISM

Finally, under "Sultanism," power is centered around an individual leader and his family, who amass extensive wealth by plundering state coffers.

The regime is characterized by the absence of any constraints on power, endless glorification/cult of personality of the leader, the prohibition of all oppositions, fear/surveillance, endemic corruption, hereditary succession, and typically the lack of any legitimacy. State officials derive their positions and their power from their personal relationship with the leader and his family.

Historically, "Sultanism" evolved from communist regimes (North Korea under Kim Il Sung, Romania under Ceaucescu), from party-based or military-based authoritarian regimes (examples of the former are Iraq under Saddam Hussein, Syria under the Assads; examples of the latter are Libya under Ghaddafi, Indonesia under Suharto), and even from electoral democracies (e.g., the Philippines under Marcos).

TABLE 9.1 Subtypes of Autocratic Regimes

	Traditional Authoritarianism	Military Authoritarianism	Theocratic Authoritarianism	Electoral Authoritarianism	Pre-Totalitarianism; Incomplete Totalitarianism	Full Totalitarianism	Post-Totalitarianism	Sultanism
POLITICAL PARTIES AND ELECTIONS AND OVERALL POLITICAL OPPOSITION	Can range from all parties being forbidden and no elections held to a multi-party system with competitive elections and limited political opposition (but without elections actually determining the government).	Usually all parties are forbidden, but there could be one official party; limited political opposition may be tolerated.	Either one official party or all parties are forbidden, although anti-regime independents may be elected.	More than one political party; limited political pluralism and consequent political opposition; however, national elections are not free and fair enough to actually change the government.	One official party with a monopoly of power and no political pluralism.	One official party with a monopoly of power and no political pluralism; political terror is often used initially to eliminate any possibility of organized opposition.	Still one official party with monopoly of power but beginnings of political pluralism.	There may be an official party, but it is not well institutionalized; political terror is often used to eliminate any possibility of organized opposition.
SOCIO-ECONOMIC PLURALISM	Can range from no significant to quite extensive social pluralism; usually economic pluralism.	Some social and economic pluralism, perhaps predating the military regime.	No significant social pluralism; usually some economic pluralism.	Many autonomous actors in economy and broader society.	Some social and economic pluralism, perhaps predating the regime.	No significant social or economic pluralism; basically total regime control; strong hostility to pre-existing organized religion.	Limited social and economic pluralism, involving dissidents and some market actors and forces.	Some economic and social pluralism, but these are subject to arbitrary despotic intervention.
CIVIL LIBERTIES	Civil liberties can range from none at all to merely incomplete.	Civil liberties are non-existent or at best limited.	Civil liberties are non-existent or at best limited.	Civil liberties are usually incomplete if not indeed limited.	Civil liberties are non-existent or, at best, limited.	No civil liberties.	Tentative but limited civil liberties.	No civil liberties.
IDEOLOGY	Stress on deference to traditional authority.	Often very nationalistic; stress on economic and, occasionally, social development.	Ideology derived from specific religious text or school.	Stress on economic growth and social peace.	Elaborate and guiding ideology that includes a desired utopian vision.	Elaborate and guiding ideology that includes a desired utopian vision.	Still a state-sanctioned, elaborate, and guiding ideology but weakened faith in this.	No ideology worth its name; instead, personal glorification of leader and family.
MOBILIZATION	Participation largely generated autonomously by civil society (where permitted).	Emphasis on demobilization, especially of pre-existing autonomous civil society.	Emphasis on religious mobilization.	Participation largely generated autonomously by civil society and by competing parties.	Beginning of or partial mobilization into a wide range of regime-created obligatory organizations.	Extensive mobilization into a wide range of regime-created obligatory organizations; active participation and enthusiasm both encouraged and expected.	Still extensive mobilization into regime-sponsored organizations, but enthusiasm replaced by boredom or careerism; dissidents organize clandestinely.	Only occasional mobilization, such as of violent para-state groups.
LEGITIMACY OF AUTHORITY	Traditional legitimacy.	Legitimacy comes from claims of acting in the national interest.	Legitimacy comes from religious position and the authority to interpret relevant scripture.	Legitimacy comes from the illusion of legal-rational authority.	Legitimacy comes initially more from the method of coming to power (e.g., elections or independence struggle) than from the official ideology.	Legitimacy comes from some combination of official ideology (especially its utopian goals) and the charisma of the dictator.	Legitimacy weakened by de-ideologization; shift to attempts at performance legitimacy.	Regime lacks broad legitimacy; compliance is based largely on fear, rewards, and personal ties to leader.
CONSTRAINTS ON AUTHORITY	Constrained at most only somewhat by the bureaucracy, private economic actors, and general public opinion.	Constrained at most only somewhat by the bureaucracy and private economic actors and maybe by any private media.	Constrained at most only somewhat by any private economic actors or private media.	Constrained only somewhat by the constitution, the courts and the rule of law, the bureaucracy, and socio-political pluralism.	Constrained somewhat by any remaining separate political actors and broadly supported private actors.	Key totalitarian leader rules with undefined limits and great unpredictability; successors tend to be more predictable and bureaucratic.	Top leaders constrained by party bureaucracy and state technocrats, but not by broader civil society.	Highly personalistic and arbitrary rule that is highly unpredictable; no bureaucratic professionalism possible.
POLITICAL ACCOUNTABILITY TO POPULATION	No political accountability of the monarch, but there may be some accountability of officials.	No political accountability.	No political accountability.	No true political accountability, although regime does prefer to be popular in actuality.	No political accountability.	No political accountability.	No political accountability, except to other party elites.	No political accountability.
LEADERSHIP DURATION	Leadership is for life and then carries on within the royal family.	Leadership is indefinite unless the military rotates power.	Leadership at the top is for life; a religious assembly chooses successors.	Leadership is indefinite unless the ruling party has internal limits (which have been as little as one term).	For arrested totalitarianism, leadership is indefinite but effectively conditional on avoiding major policy failure.	Leadership effectively for life unless regime is defeated; usually a power struggle for new leader.	Leadership effectively for life; subject to performance; successor picked peacefully by and from party oligarchy.	Leadership effectively for life unless overthrown.
TRANSITION TO (LIBERAL) DEMOCRACY	The monarch and the royal family must be willing to settle for a largely figurehead role.	Transition does not usually occur until either the military loses legitimacy (for example, by losing a war) or thinks that it has sufficiently restructured the socio-political order.	Transition has never occurred willingly.	The key step is having a truly free and fair election; then it becomes improving civil liberties and government fairness.	For arrested totalitarianism, the ruling party must first accept giving up or be forced to give up its monopoly of power.	Needs to go first through a post-totalitarian phase with some pluralism unless defeat in war and occupation by foreign power willing to democratize.	Depending on the maturity of the post-totalitarianism regime, scenarios can range from regime collapse followed by an interim government to a negotiated transition.	Sultan highly unlikely to abdicate so must be overthrown; however, actors close to sultan may fill the resulting power vacuum and frustrate true democratization.

SOURCE: Based in part on Juan J. Linz and Alfred Stepan, *Problems of Democratic Transition and Consolidation: Southern Europe, South America, and Post-Communist Europe* (Baltimore, MD: The Johns Hopkins University Press, 1996), Table 3.1 and Table 4.2, with modifications.

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